Call the cops: advice from friends and family in victim crime reporting

S. Bondarkov[a]

[a]The Institute for the Rule of Law at the European University at Saint-Petersburg, 6/1 A Gagarinskaya Street, St. Petersburg, Russia

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ABSTRACT
TBA

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1. Introduction

Suppose a rock smashes your window — wrapped around it is a note saying: 'You are the gatekeeper of criminal justice system now (Gottfredson & Gottfredson, 1987)'. That must be confusing. To make sense of what just happened and to figure out a course of action you may want to relate the experience to someone. In the end of this conversation you may choose to mobilize the law by notifiyng the police (D. J. Black, 1973) or to follow the code of the street (Anderson, 1999) and personally confront the frustrated editor that you suspect could not tolerate another opening "gatekeeper" citation in a paper on victim reporting behavior[1].

Victimization is not a light subject, of course, neither are help-seeking or reporting crime to the authorities. The imaginary scenario above is intended not to ridicule, but to fast-forward us past the stage where I am ritually convincing you in precisely that (i.e. in the well established understanding that these are serious problems worth consideration – which, let's face it, reader, we already agree on) – and to simultaneously give you the idea of a behavior mechanism that is at the center of this research.

I assume that, since any victimization is known to be unexpected and cause stress and confusion, if for entirely different reasons, we should expect that a victim of a real crime would also turn to others in order "to reduce their uncertainty and be reassured" (Ruback, Greenberg, & Westcott, 1984). I argue that, other things being equal, in certain types of crime victimization this decision to seek help in others is the most important factor of reporting the incident to the police. While often overlooked, the importance of social support in victim crime reporting is not unrecognized, as I will show in the next section. However, historically most of the work on the subject was

CONTACT S. Bondarkov. Email: sbondarkov@eu.spb.ru

[1]Whatever you choose, you want to fix that broken window. Or *do* you? (Fagan, Geller, Davies, & West, 2010)

focused on sexualized and intimate partner violence (IPV), evidence for other types of crime remaining scarce (Xie & Baumer, 2019) or, as is the case with cybercrime, non-existent. This is the gap that I address in this paper.

I aim to test whether advice from another person, or, more strictly, the opportunity to talk the incident through with someone a victim relies on, significantly influences the probability that the police will be notified. My perspective on the matter is primarily based on the model of victim decision making developed by Greenberg and Ruback (Greenberg & Ruback, 1992; Ruback et al., 1984; **?**): a victim may need help to identify the incident as victimization, in the first place; another person's input – their emotional support, their perspective on gravity of the accident, on available options of response and on possible consequences – must also weigh heavy in the decision making process. At the same time, in the spirit of calls for integrative approach (Pescosolido, 1992; Xie & Baumer, 2019), I attempt to connect social influence model with those suggested in several strains of reporting literature, namely those emphasizing structural factors (D. Black, 1976), situational characteristics and (semi-)rational evaluation of those (Gottfredson & Hindelang, 1979; Skogan, 1984; Tarling & Morris, 2010), attitudes towards criminal justice (Goudriaan, Lynch, & Nieuwbeerta, 2004), and relational distance between offender and victim (Felson, Messner, & Hoskin, 1999). To this end, I use pooled data from three waves of the Russian Crime Victimization Survey (RCVS) (**?**) – a regular and nationally representative monitoring that targets Russian citizens of 18 years and older.

Traditionally (Gottfredson & Hindelang, 1979; Skogan, 1976, 1984; Tarling & Morris, 2010), gravity of an incident, i.e. perceived actual and potential harm, is seen as the main predictor of reporting to the police. *TBA: add on other frameworks tested by Arina and Kirill.* Recent research by Dzmitryieva and Titaev (2025) showed that this view is relevant in Russian context, too.

TBA: more findings from Kirill and Arina. More rigorous approach.

TBA: Social support framework / world / IPV / some property evidence However, social support framework, developed mostly in literature on victims of rape and IPV, was left out – which is all the more natural, given that rape and IPV is out of the scope of RCVS. I build on their result assuming that in other types of crime social support factor is still relevant. I also recognize that post-victimization behavior is known to vary with crime type (**?**), so I estimate six separate models on different subsets of data: all violent crime, all property crime, assaults, robberies, thefts, fraud, and, finally, cybercrime.

I find that, after controlling for incident gravity and other possible confounders, the fact of sharing the experience with a confident is the strongest predictor of notifying the police about violent victimization. My modeling suggests that this connection is especially pronounced in cases where the perpetrator is someone close. Turning to property crime, I do not find effect of speaking to others on face-to-face fraud, however, there is a tentative evidence of positive effect of consultation with another person proves on the probability of reporting theft and cybercrime.

My paper contributes to ...

To my knowledge, this is the first paper to analyze reporting of cybercrime in connection with social support ...

A by-product of my work is an analysis of personal covariates of seeking help in intimate circle ...

The rest of the paper is conveniently organized the way you would expect. After the literature review in Section 2, I will introduce my data (Section 3) and analytical approach (Section 4), present my results (Section 5), tackle possible effect identification

problems (Subsection 5.1), offer a discussion of findings (Section 6) and conclude with conclusion (Section 7).

2. Literature review

2.1. Social support in reporting of crime

Already the early research on what makes victims delay calling the police found that in most of the cases people first talked to a witness or called someone from the intimate circle before dialing the police (**?**).

Psychological literature... Focus on intimate partner violence and sexualized violence...

Bridging the gap: Felstiner, Abel, and Sarat (1981), Ruback et al. (1984), Janoff-Bulman (1986), Pescosolido (1992), Greenberg and Ruback (1992),

Later research recognizing the role of counselors: Kaukinen (2002), Zaykowski (2015), etc.

Most recent work, integrative approach: Xie and Baumer (2019), Bergemann (2024)

...which calls for a brief review of main contestants in the field of explaining reporting behavior.

2.2. Other theoretical frameworks I rely on in this paper

Structural Black and followers. Motivation for settlement type inclusion: *Black's (1976) theory has also stimulated research on the social context of victim crime reporting. According to the informal social control model (Black 1976), for example, victims in rural areas are expected to experience more informal social controls and thus are posited to be less likely to report to the police than victims in urban areas (also see Rennison et al. 2013, Ruback & Menard 2001).*

Rational choice Gravity. Limited rationality.

Attitudes Towards police. Towards crime. Social context.

In a review of the evidence for all sides, Baumer (2002) noted that differences in access to informal social controls are inadequate on their own for explaining the variations in victim crime reporting. He proposed a theoretical synthesis, suggesting that victim decisions to notify the police may be influenced not only by access to informal social controls but also more broadly by the availability of alternative nonpolice resources for dealing with crime.

3. Data PLACEHOLDER

In this analysis, we used pooled cross-sectional data obtained by merging two waves of the Russian Crime Victimization Surveys, conducted in 2018 and 2021 (Knorre, 2019, 2022). These surveys employed nearly identical questionnaires and shared a consistent methodology, which made their integration analytically sound. This approach increases statistical power and the precision of estimates (Verbeek, 2008), with year fixed effects included in the analysis to control for differences between the survey periods. The

surveys were conducted using Computer-Assisted personal communication (CATI) with Random Digit Dialing (RDD) of mobile phone numbers. In this approach, the system generates a random number, invites a call, and if a respondent answers, the operator proceeds with the interview.

The survey achieved a 14.1% completion rate among individuals who answered the phone call. Of the people who answered the phone, 16.5% agreed to answer the interviewer's question, and of those who agreed, 85.5% proceeded to complete the full survey. Although CATI with RDD is not commonly used in victimisation research, this strategy proved more appropriate in the Russian context, where large-scale falsifications by field interviewers in face-to-face surveys are a persistent problem (Rogozin & Ipatova, 2015).

Both surveys implemented a simple random sampling strategy, aiming to interview 3,000 individuals who had experienced victimisation within the past five years. Additionally, participants were also asked about their victimisation experiences in the past twelve months. The survey instruments captured data from both victims and non-victims, collecting detailed information on socio-demographic characteristics, income, and experiences with crime. The survey was conducted across all geographical areas of the country, covering approximately 3,500 locations.

Both the RCVS2018 and RCVS2021 surveys achieved a high degree of representativeness at the national level based on key socio-demographic indicators (Serebrennikov & Titaev, 2022; Verkeev et al., 2019). A comparison of the respondents' principal sociodemographic characteristics with data from the Federal State Statistics Service of Russia (GKS, 2019) and the Comprehensive Survey of Living Conditions of the Population (KOUZ, 2020) reveals statistically insignificant differences in age and gender. However, the RCVS sample shows a slight skew in age and education level, with those aged 65 and older underrepresented and individuals with higher education overrepresented. This bias can be attributed to the lower availability of the elderly for personal communication due to health or technological barriers, and the higher availability of educated individuals. As is often the case, marginalised populations are less accessible to survey methodologies, potentially leading to missing data on major violent crimes (Verkeev et al., 2019).

The questionnaires used in RCVS2018 and RCVS2021 were nearly identical. The RCVS2018 questionnaire was developed through in-depth interviews with victims of various crimes and an extensive review of victimisation surveys in other countries (Verkeev et al., 2019). In early 2021, a methodological audit of the RCVS2018 was conducted, leading to minor revisions and the inclusion of new questions. However, these revisions did not affect the variables used in the present analysis. Since not all events reported to the police meet the legal definition of a crime, this study uses the term "incident" to refer to any such reported event, regardless of its legal qualification.

Victims were identified based on their response to the following survey question: "Please recall whether you were robbed, assaulted, threatened, or were a victim of violence, fraud, or other crimes in Russia during the last 5 years?" Respondents who answered affirmatively were classified as victims for this analysis. Table 1 presents descriptive statistics from the two surveys, showing the initial distribution of victims and non-victims. For the purposes of our analysis, only respondents who reported victimisation were included. The data were analysed using the statistical analysis software Stata version 14, and were prepared, cleaned, and captured in the Statistical Package for Social Sciences (SPSS) version 25 prior to analysis.

TBA:

Add on raking procedure.

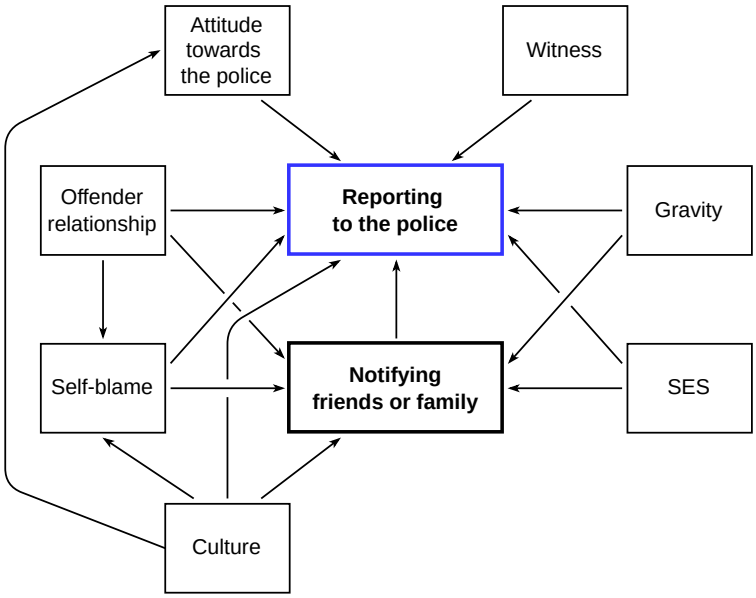


Figure 1. Causal diagram of decision making model

Table 1 describes the data I use... It is evident that most people do inform someone close about victimization incident and that it is positively correlated with reporting to the police. However, as I show in Section 4, at this point we should rather attribute this to multiple confounders of the two variables...

Table **??** in Appendix documents questions behind the variables and my aggregation decisions...

4. Analytical approach

4.1. Dependent variable

Definition of reporting, definitions of crime types (wording in questionaire).

4.2. Independent variables

A visual summary of causal relations in my model provided in Fig 1 makes it evident that an integrative framework is not merely reasonable or theoretically sound but plain necessary if one aims to identify the effect of social support on reporting. Almost all the factors that are supposed to influence the decision to notify the police may as well influence the decision to seek help in friends and family. In other words, the dependent and the focus independent variables have multiple confounders. This poses a threat to identification, which I am able to overcome by inclusion of a broad range of controls. However, there are three caveats.

First, I do not observe a victim's cultural context. The only way I am able to try to control for it is to introduce federal district fixed effects and settlement type variable, which is better than nothing but admittedly a very crude solution, because context may vary greatly across a city, not to mention a federal district (Goudriaan, Wittebrood, & Nieuwbeerta, 2006).

Table 1. Victimization and reported incidents share tabulated by variables used in this study

		Cybercrime		Fraud		Theft		Assault		Robbery	
		N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)	N	Rep. (SE)
	Total	2074	0.47 (0.01)	600	0.45 (0.02)	1893	0.61 (0.01)	790	0.56 (0.02)	340	0.67 (0.03)
Year	2018	474	0.45 (0.02)	351	0.39 (0.03)	905	0.61 (0.02)	229	0.53 (0.03)	150	0.71 (0.04)
	2021	865	0.45 (0.02)	214	0.53 (0.03)	562	0.63 (0.02)	276	0.59 (0.03)	104	0.69 (0.05)
	2024	735	0.51 (0.02)	35	0.73 (0.08)	426	0.59 (0.02)	285	0.56 (0.03)	86	0.6 (0.05)
Panel A. Socioeconomic status											
Gender	Female	1129	0.48 (0.01)	294	0.48 (0.03)	938	0.63 (0.02)	299	0.62 (0.03)	129	0.77 (0.04)
	Male	945	0.46 (0.02)	306	0.42 (0.03)	955	0.6 (0.02)	491	0.52 (0.02)	211	0.61 (0.03)
Age	18-24	193	0.33 (0.03)	39	0.49 (0.08)	165	0.37 (0.04)	134	0.35 (0.04)	52	0.41 (0.07)
	25-34	513	0.44 (0.02)	138	0.31 (0.04)	454	0.63 (0.02)	218	0.49 (0.03)	88	0.55 (0.05)
	35-49	756	0.49 (0.02)	195	0.49 (0.04)	654	0.67 (0.02)	282	0.64 (0.03)	119	0.66 (0.04)
	50-64	414	0.48 (0.02)	137	0.55 (0.04)	411	0.56 (0.02)	120	0.7 (0.04)	57	0.86 (0.05)
	65+	198	0.59 (0.04)	91	0.4 (0.05)	207	0.7 (0.03)	36	0.84 (0.06)	23	0.94 (0.05)
Has partner	No	790	0.47 (0.02)	249	0.45 (0.03)	694	0.57 (0.02)	383	0.52 (0.03)	143	0.65 (0.04)
	Yes	1284	0.47 (0.01)	351	0.45 (0.03)	1199	0.64 (0.01)	407	0.6 (0.02)	197	0.69 (0.03)
Settlement type	City	1415	0.48 (0.01)	438	0.45 (0.02)	1291	0.62 (0.01)	536	0.52 (0.02)	235	0.63 (0.03)
	Small town	306	0.45 (0.03)	88	0.46 (0.05)	313	0.6 (0.03)	116	0.59 (0.05)	50	0.84 (0.05)
	Village	303	0.47 (0.03)	57	0.45 (0.07)	227	0.61 (0.03)	111	0.7 (0.04)	48	0.76 (0.06)
	Unknown	50	0.39 (0.07)	17	0.4 (0.12)	62	0.65 (0.06)	27	0.65 (0.09)	7	0.51 (0.21)
Education	School	250	0.49 (0.03)	100	0.31 (0.05)	266	0.55 (0.03)	177	0.5 (0.04)	65	0.65 (0.06)
	Vocational	661	0.47 (0.02)	214	0.5 (0.03)	645	0.62 (0.02)	298	0.57 (0.03)	108	0.69 (0.04)
	Tertiary	1159	0.47 (0.01)	286	0.48 (0.03)	981	0.64 (0.02)	311	0.62 (0.03)	166	0.7 (0.04)
Employment	Unemployed	298	0.5 (0.03)	82	0.69 (0.05)	269	0.53 (0.03)	146	0.62 (0.04)	54	0.61 (0.07)
	Pensioner	352	0.54 (0.03)	151	0.41 (0.04)	362	0.67 (0.02)	80	0.79 (0.05)	44	0.9 (0.05)
	Worker	369	0.43 (0.03)	105	0.39 (0.05)	365	0.55 (0.03)	197	0.51 (0.04)	73	0.63 (0.06)
	Manager	417	0.41 (0.02)	119	0.34 (0.04)	370	0.67 (0.02)	137	0.56 (0.04)	75	0.62 (0.06)
	Employee	451	0.5 (0.02)	94	0.5 (0.05)	348	0.63 (0.03)	119	0.61 (0.05)	51	0.71 (0.06)
	Student	187	0.38 (0.04)	49	0.51 (0.07)	179	0.55 (0.04)	111	0.36 (0.05)	43	0.47 (0.08)
Income level	Low	456	0.54 (0.02)	24	0.86 (0.07)	265	0.61 (0.03)	180	0.58 (0.04)	59	0.71 (0.06)
	Middle	203	0.5 (0.04)	7	0.68 (0.19)	107	0.63 (0.05)	61	0.67 (0.06)	15	0.59 (0.13)
	High	58	0.42 (0.07)	4	0.14 (0.18)	39	0.57 (0.08)	34	0.34 (0.08)	6	0.23 (0.19)
Panel B. Incident characteristics											
Damage: money,	[0,1]	263	0.21 (0.03)	70	0.21 (0.05)	249	0.5 (0.03)	599	0.53 (0.02)	49	0.58 (0.07)
thnd rubles	(1,10]	825	0.36 (0.02)	159	0.27 (0.04)	592	0.5 (0.02)	81	0.63 (0.05)	105	0.64 (0.05)
	(10,50]	523	0.51 (0.02)	145	0.51 (0.04)	647	0.65 (0.02)	53	0.6 (0.07)	111	0.71 (0.04)
	(50,Inf]	463	0.74 (0.02)	226	0.65 (0.03)	405	0.79 (0.02)	57	0.82 (0.05)	75	0.73 (0.05)
Damage: physical	No							137	0.42 (0.04)	42	0.66 (0.07)
	Light							381	0.53 (0.03)	130	0.66 (0.04)
	Heavy							272	0.69 (0.03)	90	0.7 (0.05)
Incident: there	No	1177	0.45 (0.01)	218	0.4 (0.03)	1050	0.66 (0.01)	299	0.53 (0.03)	156	0.66 (0.04)
was a witness	Yes	897	0.5 (0.02)	382	0.48 (0.03)	843	0.56 (0.02)	491	0.58 (0.02)	184	0.69 (0.03)
Incident: offender	No							544	0.53 (0.02)	175	0.67 (0.04)
had a weapon	Yes							246	0.64 (0.03)	89	0.68 (0.05)
Incident: resisted	No/Doubt							220	0.69 (0.03)	101	0.73 (0.04)
	Yes							570	0.51 (0.02)	163	0.63 (0.04)
Panel C. Social factors											
Offender-victim	Stranger	1047	0.5 (0.02)	409	0.43 (0.02)	56	0.5 (0.07)	450	0.51 (0.02)	189	0.62 (0.04)
relationship	Acquaintance	38	0.68 (0.08)	75	0.51 (0.06)	12	0.64 (0.14)	84	0.53 (0.05)	32	0.65 (0.09)
	Colleague	12	0.81 (0.12)	59	0.34 (0.06)	4	0.6 (0.29)	18	0.89 (0.08)	9	0.58 (0.18)
	Neighbor	4	0.85 (0.19)	13	0.88 (0.1)	3	0.69 (0.33)	61	0.91 (0.04)	15	1 (0)
	Friend or relative	13	0.62 (0.14)	35	0.67 (0.08)	3	0.51 (0.35)	59	0.57 (0.06)	16	0.93 (0.07)
	Spouse or partner	5	0.55 (0.25)	2	0.71 (0.45)	2	0 (0)	50	0.57 (0.07)	20	0.83 (0.09)
Victim informed	No	321	0.37 (0.03)	62	0.28 (0.06)	137	0.46 (0.04)	144	0.21 (0.03)	46	0.45 (0.07)
friends or relatives	Yes	1753	0.49 (0.01)	538	0.47 (0.02)	1756	0.63 (0.01)	646	0.65 (0.02)	294	0.71 (0.03)
Panel D. Attitude towards police											
Knows a police	No	1044	0.49 (0.02)	306	0.46 (0.03)	918	0.62 (0.02)	349	0.57 (0.03)	168	0.68 (0.04)
	Yes	1026	0.45 (0.02)	294	0.45 (0.03)	975	0.6 (0.02)	439	0.56 (0.02)	170	0.69 (0.04)
Has crime record	No	1914	0.47 (0.01)	550	0.45 (0.02)	1751	0.61 (0.01)	646	0.57 (0.02)	266	0.67 (0.03)
	Yes	159	0.46 (0.04)	50	0.47 (0.07)	141	0.67 (0.04)	142	0.52 (0.04)	73	0.73 (0.05)

Proportions of reported victimizations and standard errors were calculated with weights obtained in raking procedure.

Second, I do not observe offenders characteristics other than their gender and relation to a victim. I do not include offender gender or interaction of victim-offender genders in my modeling because in my data almost the crime was committed by men. I do include relationship distance which proves to be an important factor. Still, I know nothing of offender's resourcefulness which must be one of the serious considerations in a victim's decision making process. This is an important omission, but one that my study shares with virtually all the research on reporting.

Third, I know only if the police was notified and if a victim told about the incident to someone in their intimate circle – and I do not know which came first. This means endogeneity is possible: a victim may report to the police and then relate the whole story to friends or family *because* of how the interaction with the police has worked out. While our knowledge of post-victimization behavior suggests that if someone is notified at all then friends or family come before the police (), the doubt remains. I address this issue in Subsection 5.1 by introducing a supporting model of different design.

Motivation for year fixed effects: *Some scholars have attributed substantive meanings to this change and argued that it was caused by changes in sex-role attitudes in the United States (e.g., Orcutt & Faison 1988) or by the success of rape law reforms and media campaigns (e.g., Bachman 1993, Spohn & Horney 1992). The evidence from the United Kingdom similarly supported the notion that research and policy attention to rape, sexual assault, and domestic violence had led to more adequate handling of such crimes and that this had resulted in a greater willingness of victims to report crimes by intimate friends and relatives (Tarling & Morris 2010).*

My main model is logistic regression of the following specification:

$$P(Reported_i) = g(\beta_1 ToldSomeone_i + \beta_2 Relationship_i + \beta_x SES_i + \beta_y Incident_i + \beta_z Attitude_i + \lambda + \gamma) \quad (1)$$

where $g(.)$ is logit function, $ToldSomeone$ is an indicator of informing friends or relative, SES is a vector of socioeconomic status variables, $Incident$ – a vector of situational characteristics, $Attitude$ – a vector of variables that capture a victim's attitude towards police, λ and γ are federal district and year fixed effects.

I run this model on six subsets of victim only data split by crime type: theft, face-to-face fraud, cybercrime, all property crime, assault, all violent crime.

5. Results

Regression results in Table 2 offer both expected and unexpected findings...

It may be more instructive to assess predictions from the model in Fig 2: ...

5.1. Robustness checks

Addressing possible

(1) endogeneity:
   - failed IV (only a mention, regression result not included)
   - subset of crime with close offenders

(2) ommitted variables: emotional damage, trust in police

Table 2. Logistic regression result

	Theft	Fraud	Cybercrime	All property	Assault	All violent
Told someone	0.811+	1.005	0.769	0.744+	2.100*	2.152*
Financial: (1, 10] thnd rub.	0.138	0.612	0.929	0.440+	0.859	0.641
Financial: (10, 50] thnd rub.	0.852	1.645+	1.578	1.144*	0.183	0.388
Financial: (50, Inf] thnd rub.	1.477*	2.178+	2.626*	1.889*	1.055+	1.229+
Physical: Light					0.286	0.424
Physical: Heavy					1.162	1.129
Incident: Witness					0.373	0.276
Incident: Victim resisted					-0.422	-0.419
Incident: Weapon					0.323	0.256
Self-blame	-0.620*	-0.163	-0.614+	-0.612*	-0.040	-0.285
Has partner	0.098	-0.279	-0.031	-0.027	0.096	-0.003
Off. rel.: Acquaintance or colleague					0.588	0.342
Off. rel.: Neighbour					1.213	1.396
Off. rel.: Spouse, partner, relative, friend					-0.114	0.099
Gender: Male	-0.309	-0.229	-0.133	-0.195+	-0.458	-0.416
Income: Can buy furniture/electonics	-0.015	0.273	0.170	0.113	0.085	-0.002
Income: Can buy a car, or higher	0.203	0.350	-0.435+	-0.053	0.018	0.019
Highly educated	0.104	-0.031	-0.038	0.016	0.183	0.155
Settlement: Small town	-0.175	0.408	-0.116	-0.050	0.974	1.040
Settlement: Village	-0.123	-0.281	-0.096	-0.108	0.476	0.429
Settlement: Unknown	0.076	0.104	0.116	-0.121	0.665	0.616
Attitude: Victim knows a police	-0.058	-0.227	-0.202	-0.114	-0.028	0.142
Attitude: Victim has crime record	0.511	0.535	-0.267	0.115	-0.198	0.011
Num.Obs.	1834	585	2011	4431	685	883
R2	0.152	0.223	0.166	0.139	0.308	0.291
R2 Adj.	0.125	0.158	0.143	0.128	0.222	0.222
R2 Within	0.105	0.139	0.134	0.104	0.263	0.248
R2 Within Adj.	0.087	0.092	0.119	0.097	0.198	0.196
RMSE	0.45	0.46	0.46	0.46	0.43	0.43
Std.Errors clustered by federal district and year	X	X	X	X	X	X
FE: federal_district	X	X	X	X	X	X
FE: year	X	X	X	X	X	X

+ p ¡ 0.1, * p ¡ 0.05, ** p ¡ 0.01, *** p ¡ 0.001

- regression on 2024 data with inclusion ommitted vars

6. Discussion

Scarcity of research on connection between seeking informal help and reporting may in part be due to there are seemingly no immediate policy implications (Greenberg & Ruback, 1992). However, 1) it may be more effective to work through situational advisors (victim decision making being compromised by shock), i.e. potentially anyone; 2) if we believe that consulting others heightens probability of reporting we must conclude that lonely people report less, which gives us an insight on the direction of bias introduced by under-reporting crime.

7. Conclusion

References

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Table 3. Logistic regression result after controlling for police trust and emotional damage, 2024 data only

	Theft	Cybercrime	All property	Assault	All violent
Told someone	0.045	0.539+	0.486	2.569**	2.510**
Financial: (1, 10] thnd rub.	-0.039	0.700	0.397	0.910	0.752
Financial: (10, 50] thnd rub.	0.871+	1.209**	0.990**	0.298	0.749
Financial: (50, Inf] thnd rub.	1.363**	2.193***	1.770***	0.786	0.972+
Physical: Light				-0.142	-0.104
Physical: Heavy				0.934	0.905
Emotional: Medium	0.870+	0.072	0.247	-1.084	-0.982
Emotional: Heavy	1.252*	0.816*	0.893**	-0.207	0.052
Incident: Witness				0.747	0.645+
Incident: Victim resisted				-0.531	-0.918*
Incident: Weapon				0.673	0.431
Self-blame	-0.395	-0.399	-0.477*	-0.405	-0.532
Has partner	-0.089	-0.073	-0.055	0.073	0.125
Off. rel.: Acquaintance or colleague				1.612*	1.575*
Off. rel.: Neighbour				1.956*	1.919**
Off. rel.: Spouse, partner, relative, friend				0.321	0.546
Gender: Male	0.084	0.137	0.080	-0.412	-0.332
Income: Can buy furniture/electonics	-0.115	0.073	0.005	0.733	0.708+
Income: Can buy a car, or higher	-0.526	-0.311	-0.452	-0.139	-0.143
Highly educated	0.810*	0.333*	0.389**	0.061	-0.008
Settlement: Small town	0.236	-0.289	-0.161	0.586	0.415
Settlement: Village	-0.159	-0.096	-0.250	0.556	0.258
Settlement: Unknown	1.628	-0.697	0.088	0.555	0.415
Attitude: Victim trusts the police	0.307	0.336	0.310	-0.065	0.127
Attitude: Victim knows a police	-0.212	-0.195	-0.180	0.270	0.429
Attitude: Victim has crime record	0.339	0.077	0.247	0.494	0.536
Num.Obs.	405	703	1143	260	304
R2	0.094	0.076	0.058	0.251	0.254
R2 Adj.	-0.030	0.005	0.015	0.010	0.045
R2 Within	0.135	0.136	0.120	0.264	0.272
R2 Within Adj.	0.052	0.090	0.092	0.086	0.117
RMSE	0.44	0.45	0.45	0.41	0.41
Std.Errors clustered by federal district	X	X	X	X	X
FE: federal_district	X	X	X	X	X

+ p ¡ 0.1, * p ¡ 0.05, ** p ¡ 0.01, *** p ¡ 0.001

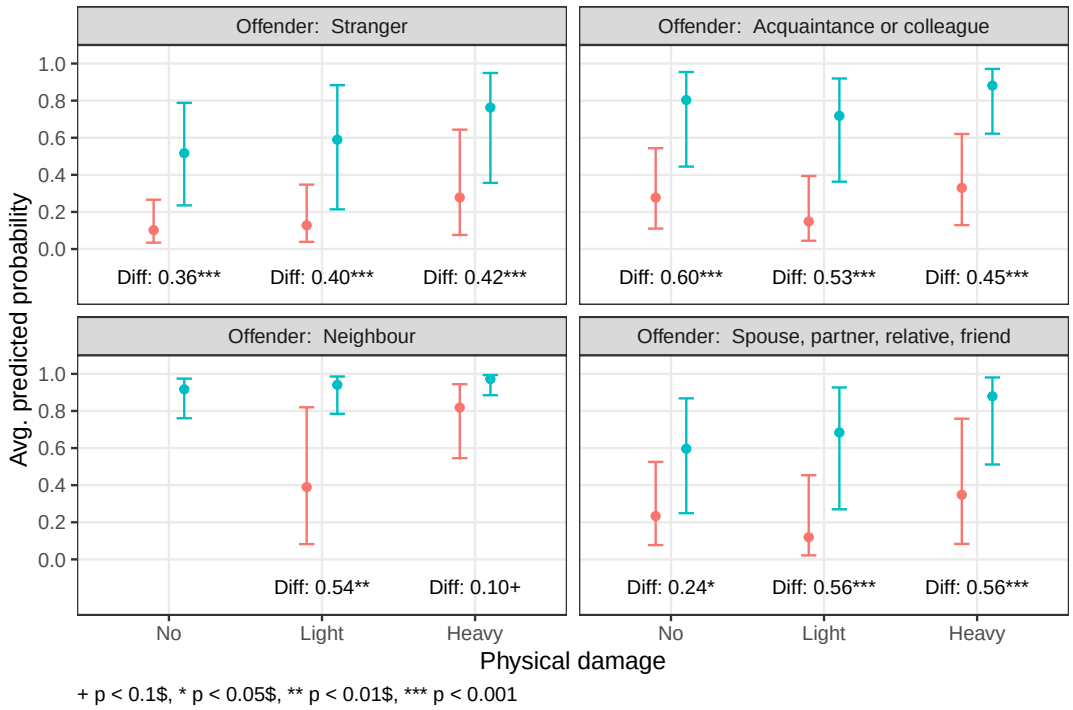


Figure 2. Predictions from model

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